

UNIT – 1

Q1. Types of Operating System

Definition / Introduction:

An **Operating System (OS)** is a system software that manages computer hardware and software resources and provides services for computer programs. It acts as a bridge between the user and hardware.

Explanation / Details:

Operating Systems are classified based on how they manage processes, resources, and users. Different OS types are designed for different kinds of tasks, like multitasking, real-time processing, or multiple users.

Types of Operating Systems:

1. Batch Operating System:

- Jobs are collected in batches and executed one after another.
- No direct interaction between user and computer.
-  *Example:* Payroll processing or bank statements.

2. Multiprogramming OS:

- Multiple programs are loaded into memory at once.
- CPU executes another program if one waits for I/O.
-  *Example:* Mainframe systems.

3. Multitasking OS:

- Allows a single user to perform multiple tasks simultaneously.
-  *Example:* Running music and Word simultaneously in Windows.

4. Time-Sharing OS:

- Each user gets a small CPU time slice.
- Designed for multiple users to share a system.
-  *Example:* UNIX.

5. Real-Time OS (RTOS):

- Processes tasks instantly as events occur.
- Used in critical applications like robots, traffic lights.
- ⚙️ *Example:* VxWorks, QNX.

6. Distributed OS:

- Manages multiple computers connected through a network.
- Users see them as one single system.
- 🌐 *Example:* LOCUS, Amoeba.

7. Network OS:

- Provides services to computers connected on a network.
- Manages file sharing, users, and security.
- 💻 *Example:* Windows Server, Novell NetWare.

8. Mobile OS:

- Designed for smartphones and tablets.
- 🐦 *Example:* Android, iOS.

 **Diagram:**

+-----+	
	Types of OS
+-----+	
	Batch OS
	Multitasking OS
	Time-Sharing OS
	Real-Time OS
	Distributed OS
	Network OS
	Mobile OS
+-----+	

Real-Life Example:

When you use your Android phone while downloading songs, chatting, and checking notifications — your **mobile OS** (like Android) handles all those tasks together.

Syllabus Example:

In your syllabus, **Time-Sharing OS** and **Real-Time OS** are usually discussed under process management and scheduling topics.

Conclusion:

Different types of Operating Systems are designed for different goals — from simple batch jobs to high-speed real-time control. Together, they make computing efficient, reliable, and user-friendly.

Q2. Components and Services of OS

Definition / Introduction:

The **Operating System** is made up of several components that manage hardware and software. It also provides essential **services** to help users and applications work efficiently.

Explanation / Details:

An OS has a modular structure that handles process control, memory, files, and I/O devices. These components work together to run programs smoothly.

Major Components of OS:

1. **Process Management:**

Handles creation, scheduling, and termination of processes.

🧩 *Example:* Switching between browser and music app.

2. **Memory Management:**

Allocates and deallocates memory to programs.

🧠 *Example:* Keeps multiple apps in RAM.

3. **File Management:**

Manages creation, reading, writing, and deletion of files.

📁 *Example:* Windows File Explorer.

4. **I/O System Management:**

Controls and coordinates input/output devices.

⌨️ *Example:* Keyboard, printer handling.

5. **Secondary Storage Management:**

Organizes data on disks, like HDD or SSD.

💾 *Example:* File allocation on drive C:.

6. **Security and Protection:**

Prevents unauthorized access to data or programs.

🔒 *Example:* Password login in Windows.

7. **Command Interpreter / Shell:**

Provides user interface to interact with OS (CLI/GUI).

💻 *Example:* CMD, Bash, Windows UI.

🧩 **Operating System Services:**

- Program Execution
- I/O Operations
- File System Manipulation
- Error Detection
- Resource Allocation
- Accounting
- Protection and Communication

📊 **Diagram:**

pgsql

+-----+		
	Operating System	
+-----+		
	Process Mgmt Memory Mgmt	
	File Mgmt I/O Mgmt	
	Security Command Interpreter	
+-----+		

🎯 Real-Life Example:

When you print a file, the OS coordinates between the application, printer driver, and hardware — that's **process + I/O + memory management** working together.

📖 Syllabus Example:

Your syllabus explains these under **OS architecture** and **kernel functions**, where each part plays a role in system resource control.

✅ Conclusion:

The OS components and services together make the system functional and user-friendly, ensuring every program runs smoothly and securely.

Q3. Buffering, Spooling, and Caching

📝 Definition / Introduction:

These are **data management techniques** used in Operating Systems to improve input/output (I/O) efficiency and performance.

💡 Explanation / Details:

They help balance the speed difference between fast CPU and slow I/O devices like printers or disks by temporarily storing data.

⚙️ 1. Buffering:

- Temporary storage of data in a **buffer** (memory area) while transferring between devices.
- Increases system speed by overlapping computation and I/O.
- 🌱 *Example:* Watching a YouTube video while it loads in background buffer.

⚙️ 2. Spooling (Simultaneous Peripheral Operation On-Line):

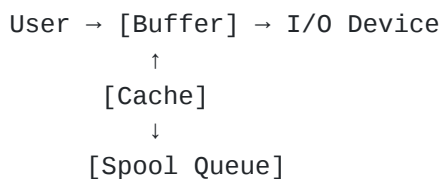
- Data is stored in a **queue (spool)** and sent to device one by one.
- Commonly used for printers where multiple print jobs are managed together.
- 🖨️ *Example:* Print queue in office printer.

⚙️ 3. Caching:

- Stores frequently accessed data in **fast memory** for quick access.
- Reduces access time and improves speed.
- ⚡ *Example:* Browser cache storing website data for faster reloading.

📊 Diagram:

CSS



🎯 Real-Life Example:

When you print multiple documents, they go into a queue — that's **spooling**. When you stream video, it preloads data — that's **buffering**. And when your browser quickly loads a page from memory — that's **caching**.

📖 Syllabus Example:

These are covered in **I/O Management** and **Performance Improvement** topics of OS.

✅ Conclusion:

Buffering, spooling, and caching are essential OS techniques that enhance I/O performance, ensuring smoother and faster data transfer between CPU and devices.

Q1. Process Management

Definition / Introduction:

A **process** is a program in execution.

Process Management in an Operating System is the activity of creating, scheduling, and terminating processes efficiently.

Explanation / Details:

The OS manages all active processes — from assigning CPU time to handling communication and synchronization. Each process gets system resources (like CPU, memory, files) as needed.

Main Functions of Process Management:

1. **Process Creation and Deletion:**

- OS creates processes when programs start and deletes them when completed.
- Example: Opening Chrome creates a new process.

2. **Process Scheduling:**

- Decides which process runs next.
- Maintains fairness and efficiency.

3. **Process Synchronization:**

Coordinates processes that share data or resources.

4. **Process Communication (IPC):**

Allows processes to exchange data safely.

5. **Deadlock Handling:**

Detects and resolves situations where two processes wait for each other's resources forever.

Diagram:

diff

+-----+			
	Process Management		
+-----+			
Creation	Scheduling	IPC	
Sync	Deletion	Deadlock	
+-----+			

Real-Life Example:

When you use WhatsApp, multiple background processes handle messages, calls, and notifications. The OS manages all these smoothly without freezing your phone.

Syllabus Example:

This topic connects to **Process State**, **Schedulers**, and **Scheduling Algorithms**— core parts of your Unit-2 theory and numericals.

Conclusion:

Process management is the backbone of multitasking systems, ensuring that each process runs efficiently, securely, and without interfering with others.

Q2. Explain TCB / PCB (Process Control Block)

Definition / Introduction:

A **Process Control Block (PCB)** is a data structure maintained by the OS to store all information about a process.

It's also called the **Task Control Block (TCB)**.

Explanation / Details:

Whenever a process is created, the OS makes a PCB for it. This structure keeps track of the process's **state**, **ID**, **memory**, **CPU registers**, and other essential details needed for scheduling and execution.

Contents of PCB:

1. **Process ID (PID):** Unique number to identify the process.
2. **Process State:** Current status (Ready, Running, Waiting, etc.)
3. **Program Counter:** Address of the next instruction.
4. **CPU Registers:** Stored values for resuming after context switch.

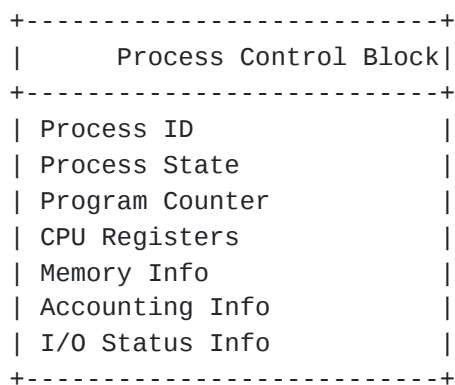
5. **Memory Management Info:** Base and limit registers, page tables.

6. **Accounting Info:** CPU usage, job priority.

7. **I/O Status Info:** Devices allocated to the process.

 **Diagram:**

pgsql



 **Real-Life Example:**

When you pause a game and come back later, the OS resumes it from where you left — because it saved your process details in the PCB.

 **Syllabus Example:**

PCB is part of **Process State Model** and **Context Switching** in your OS syllabus.

 **Conclusion:**

The PCB acts as the process's identity card inside the OS, storing everything needed to pause, resume, or terminate a process accurately.

Q3. Process State Transition Diagram

 **Definition / Introduction:**

A **process state transition diagram** shows how a process moves between different states during execution — like new, ready, running, waiting, and terminated.

 **Explanation / Details:**

At any moment, a process can be in one of several states.

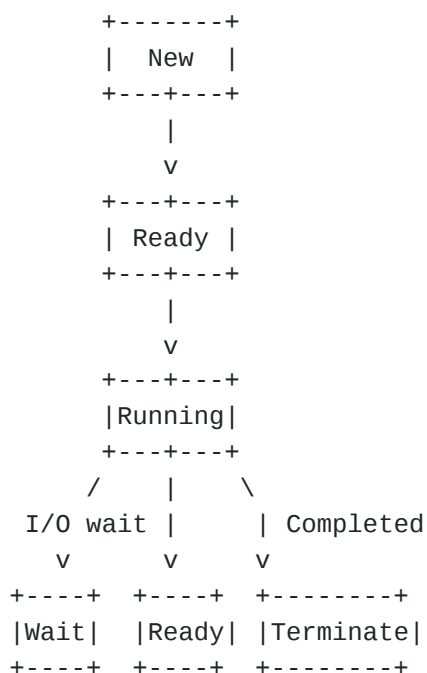
The OS continuously switches processes between these states for efficient CPU use.

Major Process States:

1. **New:** Process is being created.
2. **Ready:** Process is waiting to be assigned to CPU.
3. **Running:** Process is currently executing instructions.
4. **Waiting / Blocked:** Process is waiting for an I/O or event.
5. **Terminated:** Process has finished execution.

Diagram:

sql



Real-Life Example:

When you open a video:

- It's **New** when loading,
- **Ready** when waiting for CPU,
- **Running** when playing,

- **Waiting** if buffering,
- **Terminated** when closed.

Syllabus Example:

This diagram is part of **Process Life Cycle** topic in OS practicals and theory.

Conclusion:

The Process State Transition Diagram explains how processes move through different stages, helping the OS efficiently manage CPU scheduling and resources.

Q4. Schedulers

Definition / Introduction:

Schedulers are special OS programs that decide **which process should run next**. They manage process queues and CPU time distribution.

Explanation / Details:

Schedulers are essential for multitasking. They control how processes move between the **ready, running, and waiting** states.

Types of Schedulers:

1. Long-Term Scheduler (Job Scheduler):

- Controls admission of new jobs into the system.
- Determines which jobs are brought into memory.
-  *Frequency*: Runs less often.

2. Short-Term Scheduler (CPU Scheduler):

- Chooses which ready process should run next on CPU.
-  *Frequency*: Runs very often (milliseconds).

3. Medium-Term Scheduler:

- Handles swapping of processes between memory and disk.
- Used in systems with limited RAM.
-  *Example*: Suspends background processes temporarily.

Diagram:

New → [Long Term] → Ready → [Short Term] → Running → [Medium Term] ↔ Suspended

Real-Life Example:

When your phone freezes while multiple apps are open, the OS temporarily suspends one — that's the **medium-term scheduler** working.

Syllabus Example:

Schedulers are part of **CPU Scheduling** and **Process State Transition** sections in Unit-2.

Conclusion:

Schedulers are the brain of process management. They ensure CPU time is used efficiently and all processes get fair chances to execute.

Q5. FCFS (First-Come, First-Served) with Example

Definition / Introduction:

FCFS (First-Come, First-Served) is the simplest CPU scheduling algorithm. Processes are executed in the **order they arrive** in the ready queue.

Explanation / Details:

It's a **non-preemptive** algorithm — once a process starts execution, it runs until completion.

The waiting time depends on the arrival order, so early processes may delay later ones (the “convoy effect”).

Example:

Process	Burst Time
P1	4
P2	3
P3	1

Gantt Chart:

P1	P2	P3	
0	4	7	8

Calculations:

- Waiting Time (WT):
 - $P1=0, P2=4, P3=7$
 - $\text{Avg WT} = (0+4+7)/3 = 3.67$
- Turnaround Time (TAT):
 - $P1=4, P2=7, P3=8$
 - $\text{Avg TAT} = (4+7+8)/3 = 6.33$

Real-Life Example:

It's like standing in a queue at a movie ticket counter — whoever comes first, gets served first.

Syllabus Example:

This algorithm appears in **CPU Scheduling** numericals and theory parts.

Conclusion:

FCFS is easy to implement but inefficient for systems where short jobs wait behind long ones.

Q6. Threads

Definition / Introduction:

A **thread** is the smallest unit of CPU execution within a process.
Multiple threads can run inside one process, sharing its resources.

Explanation / Details:

Threads improve efficiency by allowing concurrent execution.
They share the same memory space but have their own program counter and registers.

Types of Threads:

1. User-Level Threads:

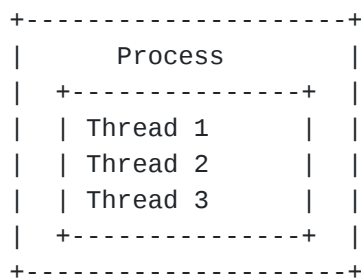
- Managed by user libraries, not the OS.
- Faster, but can block entire process if one thread waits.

2. Kernel-Level Threads:

- Managed directly by the OS.
- Slower but more reliable and multitasking.

Diagram:

lua



Real-Life Example:

In Chrome, each tab runs as a **thread** within a single browser process — if one crashes, others keep working.

Syllabus Example:

Threads are covered in **Process and Multithreading Models** of OS Unit-2.

Conclusion:

Threads make applications faster and more responsive by enabling parallel execution within a single process.

Q7. Scheduling Criteria (1 Mark Concept)

Definition:

Scheduling criteria are the **parameters used to evaluate** how good a CPU scheduling algorithm is.

Common Scheduling Criteria:

1. **CPU Utilization:** Keep CPU busy as much as possible.
2. **Throughput:** Number of processes completed per time unit.
3. **Turnaround Time:** Time from process submission to completion.
4. **Waiting Time:** Time spent in ready queue.
5. **Response Time:** Time between request submission and first response.
6. **Fairness:** Every process gets fair CPU access.

✓ **Conclusion:**

Scheduling criteria help compare algorithms and choose the best one for system performance.

UNIT – 3

Q1. Fragmentation and Types

Definition / Introduction:

Fragmentation occurs when memory is used inefficiently, leaving small unused spaces that cannot be allocated to processes.

Explanation / Details:

When processes are loaded or removed, memory holes appear. These holes may be too small for new processes, wasting space. Fragmentation reduces overall memory utilization.

Types of Fragmentation:

1. Internal Fragmentation:

- Wasted memory **inside** allocated blocks.
- Occurs if allocated memory > required memory.
-  *Example:* Request 18KB, allocated 20KB → 2KB wasted.

2. External Fragmentation:

- Wasted memory **outside** allocated blocks.
- Occurs when free memory is split into small non-contiguous chunks.
-  *Example:* Free spaces of 3KB, 5KB, 2KB cannot fit a 6KB process.

Diagram:

sql

Memory: |Used|Free|Used|Free|Free|Used|
Internal Fragmentation: Waste inside allocated blocks
External Fragmentation: Small free blocks scattered

Real-Life Example:

Imagine a bookshelf where some books don't fit exactly into the shelves — gaps appear either **inside slots** (internal) or **between shelves** (external).

Syllabus Example:

Fragmentation is discussed under **Memory Management** in OS, usually followed by paging and segmentation.

Conclusion:

Fragmentation reduces memory efficiency, and OS uses techniques like paging and compaction to solve it.

Q2. Explain Paging / Demand Paging

Definition / Introduction:

Paging is a memory management scheme that **divides physical memory into fixed-size blocks (frames)** and logical memory into **pages**.

Demand Paging loads a page into memory **only when it is needed**, not all at once.

Explanation / Details:

- Paging avoids external fragmentation because all pages and frames are the same size.
- Demand paging reduces memory usage and I/O since only necessary pages are loaded.
- OS keeps a **page table** to map logical pages to physical frames.

Steps in Demand Paging:

1. Process references a page.

2. OS checks if page is in memory.
 - If yes → continue execution.
 - If no → **Page Fault** occurs.
3. OS brings the page from disk to memory.
4. Update page table and resume process.

Diagram:

java

Logical Memory (Pages) -> Page Table -> Physical Memory (Frames)

Real-Life Example:

When you open a large PDF but only scroll to page 5, your computer loads only the needed page into RAM, not the entire document — that's **demand paging**.

Syllabus Example:

Paging and demand paging are part of **Memory Management** and **Virtual Memory** topics in OS Unit-3.

Conclusion:

Paging and demand paging efficiently utilize memory by loading only necessary data and avoiding fragmentation.

Q3. Page Replacement Algorithm (FIFO Example)

Definition / Introduction:

When memory is full, **page replacement algorithms** decide which page to remove to make space for a new one.

FIFO (First-In, First-Out) replaces the oldest loaded page first.

Explanation / Details:

- Simple and easy to implement.
- Maintains a queue of pages in memory.
- The page at the front (oldest) is removed when a new page is needed.

Steps of FIFO:

1. Maintain a queue of pages in memory.
2. On page fault:
 - Remove the page at the **front** of the queue.
 - Insert the new page at the **rear**.
3. Update the queue after each insertion/removal.

Example:

Page Reference	Memory (3 frames)	Page Fault?
1	1	Yes
2	1,2	Yes
3	1,2,3	Yes
4	4,2,3	Yes (1 replaced)
1	4,1,3	Yes (2 replaced)

Gantt-style Illustration:

makefile

Queue: Oldest → Newest
1 → 2 → 3 → 4 → 1

Real-Life Example:

Like a **queue in a cafeteria**, the person who came first leaves first to make room for newcomers.

Syllabus Example:

FIFO is part of **Page Replacement Algorithms** alongside LRU and Optimal in Unit-3 OS.

Conclusion:

FIFO is simple but may cause **Belady's anomaly**. Still, it's a basic algorithm to understand page replacement in OS.

UNIT – 4

Q1. Explain any 5 basic commands

Definition / Introduction:

Basic commands in an OS allow users to interact with files, directories, and the system through a command-line interface (CLI).

Explanation / Details:

Here are **5 essential commands** used in most OS (especially UNIX/Linux):

1. **pwd (Print Working Directory):**

- Shows the current directory path.
-  Example: `/home/up7/Downloads`

2. **ls (List):**

- Lists files and directories in the current location.
- Flags: `ls -l` (detailed), `ls -a` (all including hidden).

3. **cd (Change Directory):**

- Moves to a different directory.
- Example: `cd Documents` moves into Documents folder.

4. **mkdir (Make Directory):**

- Creates a new directory.
- Example: `mkdir Projects` creates a folder named Projects.

5. **rm (Remove):**

- Deletes files or directories.
- Example: `rm file.txt` deletes a file. Use `-r` to delete directory.

Real-Life Example:

Like navigating your phone's storage: checking where you are (`pwd`), opening folders (`cd`), listing files (`ls`), creating new folders (`mkdir`), deleting unwanted files (`rm`).

Syllabus Example:

These commands are usually in **Practical OS exams** for Unit-4, Linux/UNIX commands section.

✓ Conclusion:

Basic commands form the foundation of interacting with OS through CLI efficiently and quickly.

Q2. Process Management Commands

Definition / Introduction:

OS provides **commands to manage processes**, view their status, and terminate them if necessary.

⚡ Common Process Management Commands:

1. **ps (Process Status):**

- Lists active processes.
- Example: `ps -ef` shows all processes with details.

2. **top / htop:**

Displays CPU, memory usage, and running processes in real time.

3. **kill:**

- Terminates a process using its PID.
- Example: `kill 1234` stops process 1234.

4. **nice / renice:**

Adjusts process priority.

5. **jobs / fg / bg:**

Manages background and foreground processes.

Real-Life Example:

If a program freezes, you can use `kill` to terminate it, similar to **forcing an unresponsive app to close on your phone**.

Syllabus Example:

This topic is under **Process Management Commands** in Linux/UNIX practicals.

✓ Conclusion:

Process commands allow monitoring, controlling, and managing system processes efficiently.

Q3. Directory Structure or Access Methods



Definition / Introduction:

A **directory structure** organizes files in a computer. **Access methods** describe how data is retrieved from storage.



Directory Structures:

1. Single-Level Directory:

- All files in one folder.
- Easy but can have name conflicts.

2. Two-Level Directory:

- Separate directory for each user.
- Example: `/home/user1`, `/home/user2`.

3. Tree-Structured Directory:

- Hierarchical, directories can have subdirectories.
- Example: `/home/up7/Projects/OS`.

4. Acyclic Graph Directory:

Allows sharing of files across directories.



Access Methods:

1. Sequential Access:

- Data accessed in order.
- Example: Tapes, logs.

2. Direct / Random Access:

- Jump to any data directly.
- Example: Hard drives, RAM.

3. Indexed Access:

Uses an index table to locate files quickly.



Real-Life Example:

Your phone folders mimic **tree structure**, while **searching a photo by date** uses **direct/random access**.

Syllabus Example:

This is part of **File Management** in OS Unit-4, especially tree/hierarchical directories.

Conclusion:

Directory structures and access methods make file storage organized, accessible, and efficient.

Q4. UNIX and its Features

Definition / Introduction:

UNIX is a multi-user, multitasking operating system developed at AT&T Bell Labs in 1969.

Explanation / Details:

UNIX is widely used in servers, mainframes, and high-end workstations. It is known for **stability, security, and multitasking**.

Key Features of UNIX:

1. **Multiuser:** Multiple users can use system simultaneously.
2. **Multitasking:** Run multiple programs at once.
3. **Portability:** Can run on different hardware platforms.
4. **Hierarchical File System:** Organizes files in tree-like structure.
5. **Security:** Provides authentication, permissions, and encryption.
6. **Shell as Interface:** Command-line interface for user interaction.
7. **Pipes & Filters:** Combines programs to perform tasks efficiently.

Real-Life Example:

Servers hosting websites often run UNIX/Linux because it can handle multiple requests and users without crashing.

Syllabus Example:

Unit-4 OS theory emphasizes **UNIX commands, features, and advantages**.

Conclusion:

UNIX is a robust, secure, and flexible OS, forming the base for many modern operating systems like Linux and macOS.